Naive Bayes in Classification

Naive Bayes is a **supervised machine learning classification technique** based on **Bayes' Theorem**.

It is used to classify data into different classes by calculating the **probability of each class** and selecting the class with the highest probability.

The word **"Naive"** means that the algorithm assumes that the features are **independent of each other**.

Naive Bayes predicts the class of a new data item by using the probability of its features and selecting the most probable class.

Example: Email Classification

Suppose an email contains the words:

"Win free money"

We want to classify it as:

- **Spam**
- **Not Spam**

Naive Bayes checks the probability of these words occurring in spam and non-spam emails.

If: **Probability of Spam > Probability of Not Spam**

then the email is classified as: **Spam**

Working

Training Data

↓

Calculate Probabilities

↓

New Data/Email

↓

Calculate Class Probabilities

↓

Select Highest Probability

↓

Predicted Class

Bayes' Theorem



Where:

- **P(A|B)** = Probability of A when B is known
- **P(B|A)** = Probability of B when A is known
- **P(A)** = Probability of A
- **P(B)** = Probability of B

Applications of Naive Bayes

1. **Spam email detection**
2. **Text classification**
3. **Sentiment analysis**
4. **Document classification**
5. **News classification**
6. **Medical diagnosis**

Advantages

- Simple and easy to implement.
- Fast in training and prediction.
- Works well with large datasets.
- Particularly useful for text classification.
- Requires relatively less training data compared with some other methods.

Naive Bayes is a supervised classification algorithm based on Bayes' Theorem that assumes the features are independent and classifies a data item according to the class having the highest probability.

Naive Bayes – Numerical Example

Suppose we want to classify an email as **Spam** or **Not Spam**.

We have the following training data:

Email	Free	Class
1	Yes	Spam
2	Yes	Spam
3	No	Not Spam
4	No	Not Spam
5	Yes	Spam

Now, classify a new email:

Free = Yes

Step 1: Calculate Prior Probability

Total emails = 5

Spam emails = 3

Not Spam emails = 2

P(Spam) = 3 / 5 = 0.6

P(Not Spam) = 2 / 5 = 0.4

Step 2: Calculate Conditional Probability

Among 3 Spam emails, all 3 contain “Free = Yes”.

P(Free|Spam) = 3 / 3 = 1

Among 2 Not Spam emails, none contains “Free = Yes”.

P(Free | Not Spam) = 0 / 2 = 0

Step 3: Apply Bayes' Formula

Bayes' theorem:

P (Class | Feature) = (P (Feature | Class) * P(Class)) / P(Feature)

For Spam:

P (Spam | Free) = (P (Free | Spam) * P(Spam)) / P(Free)

= (1* 0.6) / P(Free)

For Not Spam:

P (Not Spam | Free) = (0 * 0.4) / P(Free) = 0

Since the probability of **Spam** is higher, the new email is classified as:

Spam

Rule: - **Calculate probability for each class → Compare probabilities → Choose the class with the highest probability.**

Clustering Technique – K-Means

K-Means is an **unsupervised machine learning clustering technique** used to divide a dataset into **K groups (clusters)** based on the similarity of data points.

In K-Means, each data point is assigned to the cluster whose **centroid (center)** is nearest to it.

Important Terms

- **K** → Number of clusters required.
- **Centroid** → Center point of a cluster.
- **Cluster** → Group of similar data points.
- **Distance** → Used to determine which centroid is closest to a data point.

Working of K-Means

1. Choose the number of clusters **K**.
2. Select **K initial centroids**.
3. Calculate the distance of each data point from each centroid.
4. Assign each data point to the **nearest centroid**.
5. Recalculate the centroid of each cluster.
6. Repeat the assignment and centroid calculation.
7. Stop when the centroids become stable or there is no significant change.

Flow

Dataset
↓
Choose K
↓
Select Initial Centroids
↓
Calculate Distance
↓
Assign Points to Nearest Centroid
↓
Calculate New Centroids
↓
Repeat
↓
Final Clusters

Distance Formula

Usually, **Euclidean Distance** is used:

$$d = \sqrt{(x_2 - x_1)^2 + (y_2 - y_1)^2}$$

where:

- d = Distance between two points
- x_1, y_1 = Coordinates of first point
- x_2, y_2 = Coordinates of second point

Example

Suppose we have students based on their **study hours and marks**:

Student	**Study Hours**	**Marks**
A	1	30
B	2	35
C	3	40
D	8	80
E	9	85
F	10	90

Let:

K=2

K-Means can form two clusters:

Cluster 1: A, B, C

Students with lower study hours and marks.

Cluster 2: D, E, F

Students with higher study hours and marks.

Thus, K-Means automatically groups similar students into different clusters.

Applications

1. Customer segmentation
2. Image segmentation
3. Document clustering
4. Market analysis
5. Student performance grouping
6. Recommendation systems
7. Pattern recognition
8. Anomaly detection

Advantages

- Simple and easy to implement.
- Fast for large datasets.
- Easy to understand.
- Works well when clusters are clearly separated.
- Computationally efficient.

Disadvantages

- Value of **K** must be chosen in advance.
- Sensitive to initial centroid selection.
- Sensitive to outliers.
- Does not work well with irregularly shaped clusters.
- Different initial centroids may produce different results.

K-Means is an unsupervised clustering algorithm that divides data into K clusters by assigning each data point to the nearest centroid and repeatedly updating the centroids until the clusters become stable.

2-Dimensional K-Means Numerical Example

Question

Consider the following 2-dimensional data points:

Point	X	Y
A	1	1
B	2	2
C	3	3
D	8	8
E	9	9
F	10	10

Take:

K=2

Let the initial centroids be:

$$C_1 = (1, 1)$$

$$C_2 = (8, 8)$$

Step 1: Calculate Euclidean Distance

For a 2-dimensional point:

$$d = \sqrt{(x - x_c)^2 + (y - y_c)^2}$$

where (x, y) is the data point and (x_c, y_c) is the centroid.

Step 2: Calculate Distance of Each Point

Point A = (1,1)

Distance from $C_1 = (1,1)$:

$$d(A, C_1) = \sqrt{(1-1)^2 + (1-1)^2}$$
$$= 0$$

Distance from $C_2 = (8,8)$:

$$d(A, C_2) = \sqrt{(1-8)^2 + (1-8)^2}$$
$$= \sqrt{49+49} = \sqrt{98} = 9.90$$

Therefore, **A → Cluster 1**

Point B = (2,2)

$$d(B, C_1) = \sqrt{(2-1)^2 + (2-1)^2}$$
$$= \sqrt{2} = 1.41$$
$$d(B, C_2) = \sqrt{(2-8)^2 + (2-8)^2}$$
$$= \sqrt{72} = 8.49$$

Therefore, **B → Cluster 1**

Point C = (3,3)

$$d(C, C_1) = \sqrt{(3-1)^2 + (3-1)^2}$$
$$= \sqrt{8} = 2.83$$
$$d(C, C_2) = \sqrt{(3-8)^2 + (3-8)^2}$$
$$= \sqrt{50} = 7.07$$

Therefore, **C → Cluster 1**

Point D = (8,8)

$$d(D, C_1) = \sqrt{(8-1)^2 + (8-1)^2}$$
$$= \sqrt{98} = 9.90$$
$$d(D, C_2) = 0$$

Therefore, **D → Cluster 2**

Point E = (9,9)

$$d(E, C_1) = \sqrt{(9-1)^2 + (9-1)^2}$$
$$= \sqrt{128} = 11.31$$
$$d(E, C_2) = \sqrt{(9-8)^2 + (9-8)^2}$$
$$= \sqrt{2} = 1.41$$

Therefore, **E → Cluster 2**

Point F = (10,10)

$$d(F, C_1) = \sqrt{(10-1)^2 + (10-1)^2}$$
$$= \sqrt{162} = 12.73$$
$$d(F, C_2) = \sqrt{(10-8)^2 + (10-8)^2}$$
$$= \sqrt{8} = 2.83$$

Therefore, **F → Cluster 2**

Step 3: Form Clusters

Cluster	Points
Cluster 1	A, B, C
Cluster 2	D, E, F

Step 4: Calculate New Centroids

New Centroid of Cluster 1

Points:

$$(1,1), (2,2), (3,3)$$

Formula:

$$C_1 = \left(\frac{\sum X}{n}, \frac{\sum Y}{n}\right)$$
$$C_1 = \left(\frac{1+2+3}{3}, \frac{1+2+3}{3}\right)$$
$$C_1 = (2,2)$$

New Centroid of Cluster 2

Points:

$$(8,8), (9,9), (10,10)$$
$$C_2 = \left(\frac{8+9+10}{3}, \frac{8+9+10}{3}\right)$$
$$C_2 = (9,9)$$

Final Result

$$\boxed{C_1 = (2,2)}$$
$$\boxed{C_2 = (9,9)}$$

Therefore:

Cluster 1 → A (1,1), B (2,2), C (3,3)

Cluster 2 → D (8,8), E (9,9), F (10,10)

What Happens After Calculating New Centroids?

$$C_1 = (2, 2)$$

$$C_2 = (9, 9)$$

Now we **repeat the same process** using these **new centroids**.

1. Again Calculate Distances

For every point, calculate its distance from the **new** C_1 and **new** C_2.

For example, for point C = (3,3):

Distance from $C_1 = (2, 2)$:

$$d(C, C_1) = \sqrt{(3-2)^2 + (3-2)^2}$$

$$= \sqrt{2} = 1.41$$

Distance from $C_2 = (9, 9)$:

$$d(C, C_2) = \sqrt{(3-9)^2 + (3-9)^2}$$

$$= \sqrt{72} = 8.49$$

So C remains in **Cluster 1**.

2. Do This for All Points

Point	**Distance from C_1 (2,2)**	**Distance from C_2 (9,9)**	**Cluster**
A (1,1)	1.41	11.31	C_1
B (2,2)	0	9.90	C_1
C (3,3)	1.41	8.49	C_1
D (8,8)	8.49	1.41	C_2
E (9,9)	9.90	0	C_2
F (10,10)	11.31	1.41	C_2

So, the clusters are **still**:

Cluster1 = {A, B, C}

Cluster2 = {D, E, F}

3. Calculate Centroids Again

Since the clusters have not changed:

$$C_1 = \left(\frac{1+2+3}{3}, \frac{1+2+3}{3}\right)$$

$$C_1 = (2, 2)$$

And:

$$C_2 = \left(\frac{8+9+10}{3}, \frac{8+9+10}{3}\right)$$

$$C_2 = (9, 9)$$

The centroids are **exactly the same as before**.

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4. Stop the Algorithm

Now we compare:

Old centroids:

$$C_1 = (2, 2), \quad C_2 = (9, 9)$$

New centroids:

$$C_1 = (2, 2), \quad C_2 = (9, 9)$$

There is **no change**.

Therefore, K-Means stops.

Final Clusters

$$\boxed{Cluster\ 1 = \{A, B, C\}}$$

$$\boxed{Cluster\ 2 = \{D, E, F\}}$$

Complete K-Means Process

Choose K
↓
Select Initial Centroids
↓
Calculate Distances
↓
Assign Points to Nearest Centroid
↓
Calculate New Centroids
↓
Calculate Distances Again
↓
Reassign Points
↓
Calculate New Centroids Again
↓
Check Whether Centroids Changed
↓
No Change?
↓
YES
↓
Final Clusters

Classification Metrics in Machine Learning

Classification metrics are used to evaluate the performance of a machine learning model and measure how accurately it predicts the correct class.

1. Accuracy

Accuracy is the ratio of correctly predicted observations to the total number of observations.

$$Accuracy = \frac{TP + TN}{TP + TN + FP + FN}$$

Where:

- TP (True Positive): Actual positive and predicted positive.
- TN (True Negative): Actual negative and predicted negative.
- FP (False Positive): Actual negative but predicted positive.

- FN (False Negative): Actual positive but predicted negative.

Given Values

Let:

- True Positive (TP) = 40
- True Negative (TN) = 30
- False Positive (FP) = 20
- False Negative (FN) = 10

For MAE, let actual values be 10, 20, 30 and predicted values be 12, 18, 25.

$$Accuracy = \frac{40 + 30}{40 + 30 + 20 + 10} \times 100$$

$$= \frac{70}{100} \times 100$$

$$Accuracy = 70\%$$

Use: Measures the overall correctness of a classification model.

2. Precision

Precision measures how many of the observations predicted as positive are actually positive.

$$Precision = \frac{TP}{TP + FP}$$

$$Precision = \frac{40}{40 + 20} \times 100$$

$$= \frac{40}{60} \times 100$$

$$Precision = 66.67\%$$

Use: Precision is important when false positive predictions must be minimized.

3. Recall

Recall measures how many actual positive observations are correctly identified by the model.

$$Recall = \frac{TP}{TP + FN}$$

$$Recall = \frac{40}{40 + 10} \times 100$$

$$= \frac{40}{50} \times 100$$

$$Recall = 80\%$$

Use: Recall is important when missing positive cases is costly, such as detecting diseases.

4. F1 Score

F1 Score is the harmonic mean of precision and recall. It provides a balance between precision and recall.

$$F1 = 2 \times \frac{Precision \times Recall}{Precision + Recall}$$

$$F1 = 2 \times \frac{66.67 \times 60}{66.67 + 60}$$

$$F1 = \frac{10667.2}{146.67}$$

$$F1 \approx 72.73\%$$

Use: F1 Score is useful when both precision and recall are important, especially for imbalanced datasets.

5. MAE (Mean Absolute Error)

Mean Absolute Error is the average of the absolute differences between actual values and predicted values.

MAE is primarily used for regression problems, rather than classification problems.

$$MAE = \frac{1}{n}\sum_{i=1}^{n}|y_i - \hat{y_i}|$$

Where:

- n = Total number of observations

- y_i = Actual value
- $\hat{y}_i$ = Predicted value
- $| \, |$ = Absolute value

Example:

Actual values: 10, 20, 30

Predicted values: 12, 18, 25

Here, $n = 3$

$$MAE = \frac{|10 - 12| + |20 - 18| + |30 - 25|}{3}$$

$$MAE = \frac{2 + 2 + 5}{3} = \frac{9}{3}$$

$$MAE = 3$$

Use: Measures the average magnitude of prediction errors. A lower MAE indicates better predictions.

Difference Between Classification Metrics

Metric	**Measures**	**Best Value**
Accuracy	Overall correct predictions	100%
Precision	Correct positive predictions among predicted positives	100%
Recall	Correctly identified actual positives	100%
F1 Score	Balance between precision and recall	100%
MAE	Average absolute prediction error	0

Accuracy measures overall correctness, precision measures the reliability of positive predictions, recall measures the identification of actual positive cases, F1 Score balances precision and recall, and MAE measures average prediction error.

Neural Networks

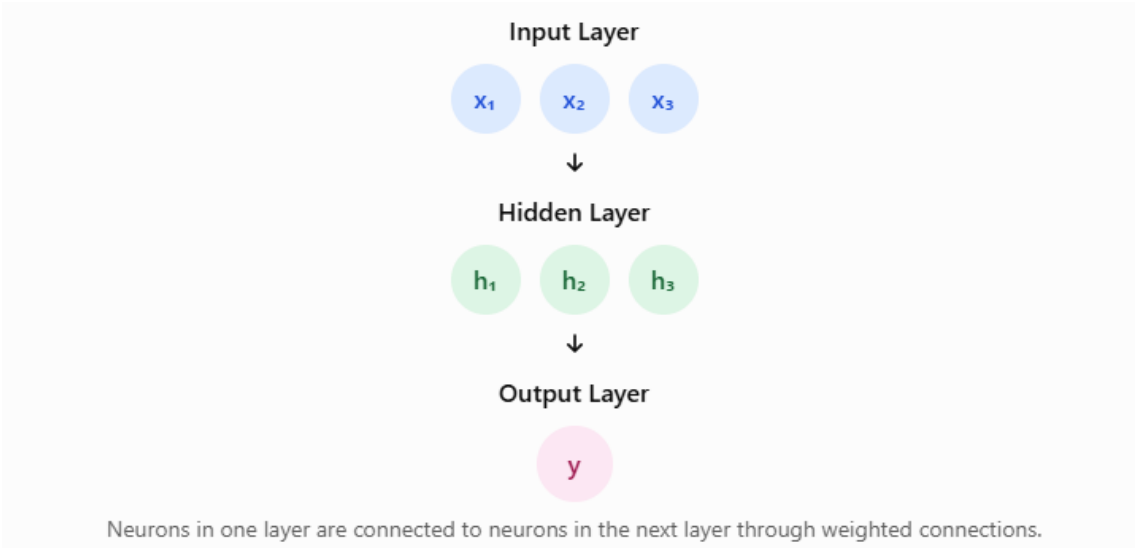
(Don’t write bracket line in exam, it’s just for understanding)

1. Definition

A Neural Network is a machine learning model inspired by the working of the human brain. It consists of interconnected neurons arranged in layers that process data and learn patterns to make predictions or decisions.

(**Example:** A neural network can learn to identify whether an image contains a cat or a dog by studying many cat and dog images.)

2. Simple Diagram of a Neural Network



Neurons in one layer are connected to neurons in the next layer through weighted connections.

(**Example:** If we give a picture of a cat to the neural network, the input layer receives the picture, the hidden layer identifies patterns such as ears and eyes, and the output layer predicts “Cat.”)

3. Neurons

A neuron is the basic processing unit of a neural network. It receives inputs, multiplies them by weights, adds a bias, and applies an activation function to produce an output.

(For **example**, when identifying a cat, one neuron may respond to the presence of pointed ears, while another may respond to the shape of the eyes.)

Functions of a neuron:

1. Receives input values.
2. Multiplies inputs by their respective weights.
3. Adds a bias.
4. Applies an activation function.
5. Passes the output to the next layer.

(Bias is an additional numerical value added to the weighted sum of inputs in a neuron. It helps a neural network adjust its output and learn patterns more effectively.)

(An activation function is a mathematical function applied to the result calculated by a neuron. It determines the neuron's output and helps the neural network learn complex patterns.)

4. Layers in a Neural Network

A neural network consists of three main types of layers.

1. Input Layer: Receives input data such as images, numbers, or text.

(**Example:** If we want to identify cats and dogs, the input layer receives the image data.)

2. Hidden Layer: Processes the input data and learns patterns using weights, biases, and activation functions. A network can have one or more hidden layers.

(**Example:** While identifying an animal, hidden layers may learn patterns such as ears, eyes, fur, and face shape.)

3. Output Layer: Produces the final result, such as a predicted value or a class label.

(**Example:** After examining an image, the output layer may predict “Cat” or “Dog.”)

5. Weights

Weights are numerical values assigned to the connections between neurons. They determine the importance of each input in producing the output.

(**Example:** Suppose a neural network predicts whether a student will pass an examination based on study hours and attendance.)

- A larger absolute weight generally indicates a stronger influence on the neuron's output.

- Positive weights increase the weighted sum, while negative weights decrease it.
- During training, weights are adjusted to reduce prediction errors.

Example:

If inputs are $x_1 = 2, x_2 = 3$, and their weights are $w_1 = 0.5, w_2 = 0.2$, then:

$$Weighted\ Sum = x_1 w_1 + x_2 w_2$$

$$= (2 \times 0.5) + (3 \times 0.2)$$

$$= 1 + 0.6 = 1.6$$

6. Working of a Neural Network

1. Input data is provided to the input layer.
2. Inputs are multiplied by their weights.
3. Each neuron calculates a weighted sum and adds a bias.
4. An activation function processes the result.
5. Hidden layers extract useful patterns from the data.
6. The output layer produces the prediction.
7. During training, weights are adjusted to improve prediction accuracy.

Neural networks use interconnected neurons, layers, and adjustable weights to learn patterns from data and make predictions.